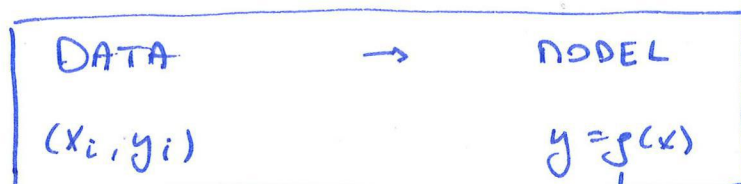


POLYNOMIAL INTERPOLATION

* Key task in data science is the construction of models from data



↘ choose model class
e.g. polynomial.

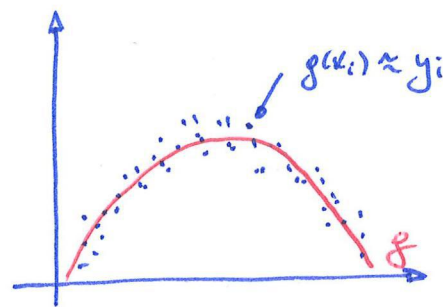
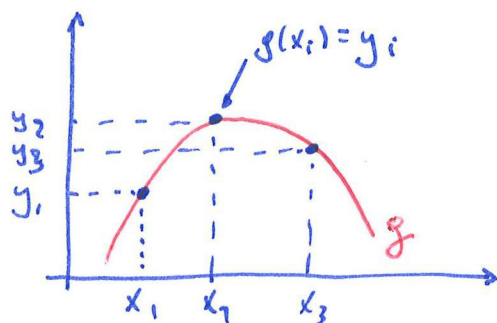
* DATA INTERPOLATION (T3)

DATA APPROXIMATION (T5)

"Find g such that $g(x_i) = y_i$ "

"Find g such that $g(x_i) \approx y_i$ "

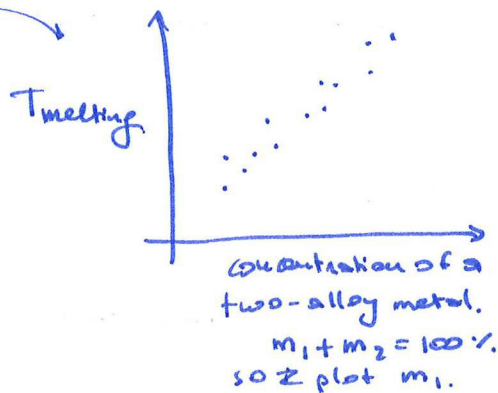
↓
this requires a criterion
to measure the misfit.
e.g. LS.



* WHY? (First, ask students)

- ↳ Intermediate values
- ↳ Need an approx of derivative / integral of the underlying func (see T4)
- ↳ Need smooth / continuous repr of the variables.

↳ motion planning waypoints
robot arm (smooth motion)



Every experiment cost 10k €. So, let's do a few exps and interpolate intermediate points.

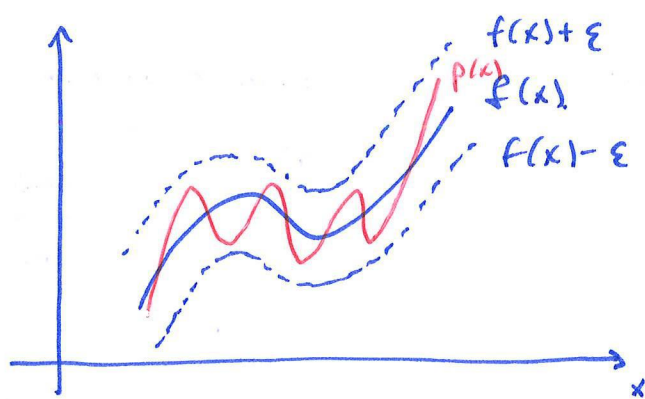
* Can we even do it? Is it possible?

↳ Practically, we often assume that relationships between variables in a physical problem can be approximately reproduced from data.

↳ From a mathematical pov, we have the Weierstrass Approx. thm.

"Suppose f exists and is continuous on $[a, b]$. For each $\epsilon > 0$, there exists a polynomial $p(x)$ defined on $[a, b]$, such that.

$$|f(x) - p(x)| < \epsilon \text{ for all } x \in [a, b]."$$

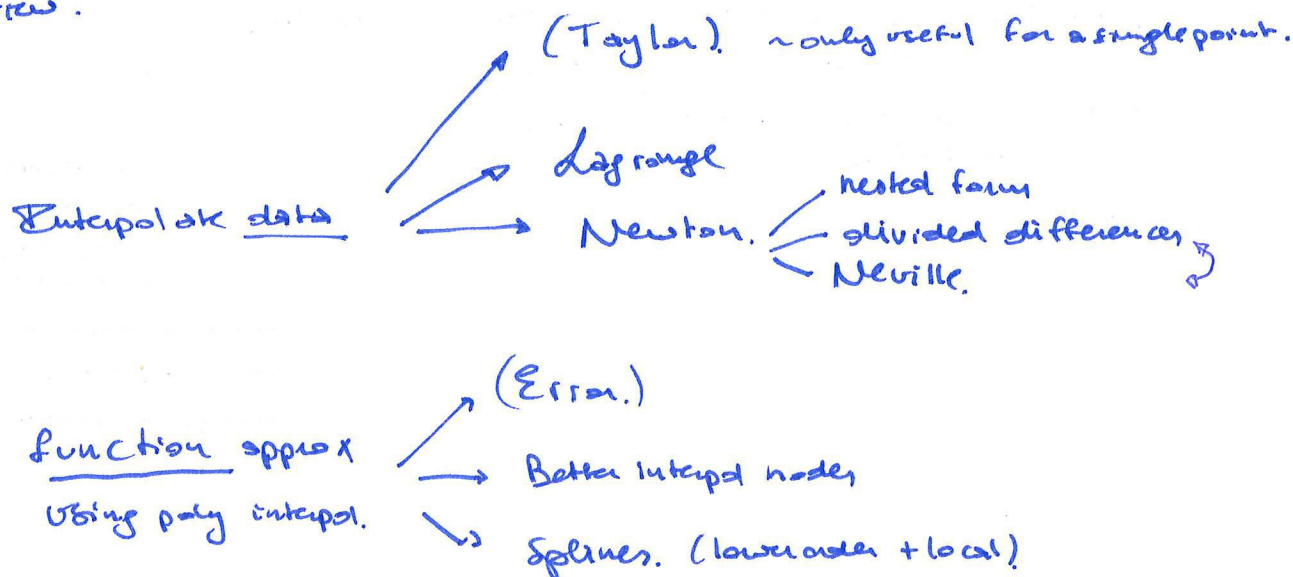


$$\forall \epsilon > 0, \exists p(x) : \forall x \in [a, b] : |f(x) - p(x)| < \epsilon.$$

* Why polynomials? (First, ask students.)

- Easy to evaluate (cf. Horner, see T1)
- Derivs & Integrals are also polynomials AND easy to compute.
- (. And we have Weierstrass.)

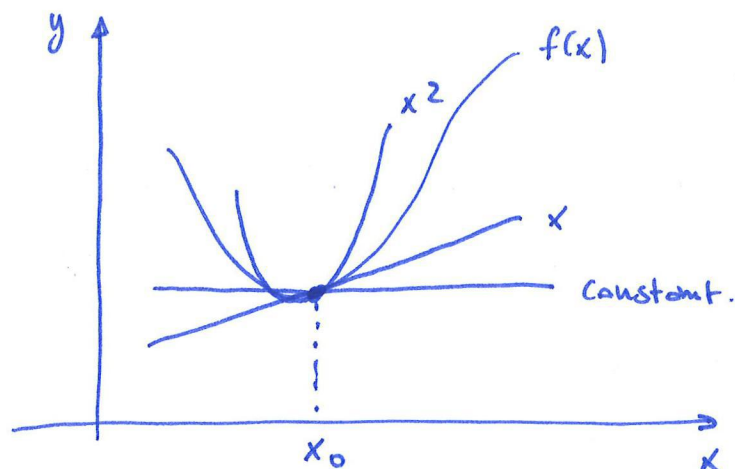
* Overview.



Taylor Series

* Taylor polynomial

"Find a polynomial p approximating a function f in a neighbourhood of a point x_0 ."



$$p_0(x) = a_0$$

$$p_1(x) = a_0 + a_1(x - x_0)$$

$$p_2(x) = a_0 + a_1(x - x_0) + a_2(x - x_0)^2$$

$\vdots$

$$p_n(x) = \sum_{i=0}^n a_i (x - x_0)^i$$

(?) What coefficients should I use? Many choices suggestion:
Let's match the derivatives of $p(x)$ and $f(x)$ at x_0 .

$$p(x) = a_0 + a_1(x - x_0) + a_2(x - x_0)^2 + a_3(x - x_0)^3 + \dots$$

$$p'(x) = a_1 + 2a_2(x - x_0) + 3a_3(x - x_0)^2 + \dots$$

$$p''(x) = 2a_2 + 6a_3(x - x_0) + \dots$$

$$p'''(x) = 6a_3 + \dots$$

$$\hookrightarrow p^{(k)}(x_0) = f^{(k)}(x_0). \Leftrightarrow k! a_k = f^{(k)}(x_0).$$

$$\Leftrightarrow \boxed{a_k = \frac{f^{(k)}(x_0)}{k!}}$$

So: Taylor polynomial

$$p_n(x) = f(x_0) + f'(x_0)(x-x_0) + \frac{f''(x_0)}{2}(x-x_0)^2 + \frac{f'''(x_0)}{6}(x-x_0)^3 + \dots + \frac{f^{(n)}(x_0)}{n!}(x-x_0)^n.$$

Example

$f(x) = e^x \cos(2x)$ at $x_0 = 0$ by $p_3(x)$.

$$\begin{aligned} \hookrightarrow p_3(x) &= f(x_0) + f'(x_0)(x-x_0) + \frac{f''(x_0)}{2}(x-x_0)^2 + \frac{f'''(x_0)}{6}(x-x_0)^3 \\ &= f(0) + f'(0)x + \frac{f''(0)}{2}x^2 + \frac{f'''(0)}{6}x^3 \end{aligned}$$

$$\hookrightarrow f(x) = e^x \cos(2x)$$

$$f'(x) = e^x (\cos(2x) - 2\sin(2x))$$

$$f''(x) = e^x (-3\cos(2x) - 4\sin(2x))$$

$$f'''(x) = e^x (-11\cos(2x) + 2\sin(2x)).$$

$$f(0) = 1$$

$$f'(0) = 1$$

$$f''(0) = -3$$

$$f'''(0) = -11$$

$$\hookrightarrow p_3(x) = 1 + x - \frac{3}{2}x^2 - \frac{11}{6}x^3$$

→ see matlab

* Taylor series = infinite sum.

$$f(x) = \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} \frac{f^{(k)}(x_0)}{k!} (x-x_0)^k$$

eg: $f(x) = e^x$ at $x_0 = 0$
 $f^{(k)}(x) = e^x$ $f^{(k)}(0) = 1.$

$$\text{so } e^x = \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} \frac{1}{k!} x^k.$$

eg. $f(x) = \frac{1}{1-x} = (1-x)^{-1}$

$$f^{(k)}(x) = k! (1-x)^{-(k+1)}.$$

$$\text{so: } \frac{1}{1-x} = \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} x^k \text{ if } |x| < 1.$$

! Analytic functions: $e^x, \log(1+x), \sin x, \cos x, \dots$

* Error

$$f(x) \approx p_n(x)$$

↳ how big is this?

note: series = exact ∞
polynomial = approx. $\downarrow$
n

Taylor's theorem If f is $(n+1)$ -differentiable, then there exists $\xi(x)$ between x_0 and x such that.

$$f(x) = \sum_{k=0}^n \frac{f^{(k)}(x_0)}{k!} (x-x_0)^k + \underbrace{\frac{f^{(n+1)}(\xi(x))}{(n+1)!} (x-x_0)^{n+1}}_{\text{error term}}$$

(due to throwing away $n+1$ up to ∞ .)

This gives us an error bound:

if $x, x_0 \in [a, b]$, then

$$|f(x) - p_n(x)| \leq \frac{1}{(n+1)!} \cdot \max_{\xi \in [a, b]} |f^{(n+1)}(\xi)| \cdot |x-x_0|^{n+1}$$

? This is the nice thing about Taylor polynomials! We can fully characterize the error!

① Suppose $f(x) = x^3 + 2x - 5$. What is the error for $p_2(x)$?

→ 0 because $f^{(4)}(x) = 0$

* Derivation for error (non-examinable), see extra notes.

* example: Approximate $e^{1/2}$ using $P_3(x)$ and $x_0 = 0$.

Taylor's theorem tells us that.

$$e^x = \underbrace{1 + x + \frac{1}{2}x^2 + \frac{1}{6}x^3}_{P_3(x)} + \underbrace{\frac{1}{24}e^{\xi}x^4}_{\text{error term}} \quad \text{for some } \xi \in (0, x).$$

↓
Can we bound this somehow?
So that it's more useful...
Sometimes we can!

↳ note:

$$e = 2.718 < 4$$

$$e^{1/2} < 4^{1/2}$$

$$e^{1/2} < 2$$

↳ Also, e^x is monotonic.

↳ So, if $\xi \in (0, 1/2)$, then $e^{\xi} \in (e^0, e^{1/2}) \subset [1, 2]$

$$\begin{aligned} \text{So: } e^{1/2} &= 1 + \frac{1}{2} + \frac{1}{2} \cdot \frac{1}{4} + \frac{1}{6} \cdot \frac{1}{8} + \frac{1}{24} \cdot \frac{1}{16} \cdot [1, 2] \\ &= [1.6484375; 1.651041\bar{6}] \end{aligned}$$

$$= 1.6487 \pm 0.0014 \rightarrow \text{super nice!}$$

cf.

exact value: 1.64872127 (8dp) within computed bounds

BUT

Taylor provides a nice approx in the neighbourhood
of a point, but not far away from it

↓
We have multiple data points

↳ which is fine if you always
work around a specific point
(cf. engineering apps, physics...)

We need something else.

Error in Linear Taylor polynomial

1) Given a function $f(x)$ and a first-order Taylor approx $p(x) = f(x_0) + f'(x_0)(x - x_0)$ around x_0 .

2) What is the error at the point x_* ?
Define: $E_* = f(x_*) - p(x_*)$.

Can we find an expression for E_* ? --- Yes.

3) Define a new aux. function.

$$q(x) = p(x) + E_* \frac{(x - x_0)^2}{(x_* - x_0)^2}.$$

This function will help us to characterize the error!

→ why $()^2$? We don't want to change $p(x)$ (first order, x)

→ why this particular form?

$$q(x_0) = p(x_0) + 0 \rightarrow \text{correct, because deriv around } x_0.$$

$$q(x_*) = p(x_*) + E_* \rightarrow \text{poly} + \text{error in } x_*$$

4) Define a new function

$$\begin{aligned} g(x) &= q(x) - f(x). \\ &= p(x) + E_* \frac{(x - x_0)^2}{(x_* - x_0)^2} - f(x). \\ &= f(x_0) + f'(x_0)(x - x_0) + E_* \frac{(x - x_0)^2}{(x_* - x_0)^2} - f(x). \end{aligned}$$

$$\text{note: } g(x_0) = f(x_0) + 0 + 0 - f(x_0) = 0$$

$$\begin{aligned} g(x_*) &= \cancel{p(x_*) + E_*} - f(x_*) \\ &= E_* - \underbrace{(f(x_*) - p(x_*))}_{= E_*} = 0. \end{aligned}$$

To conclude: we did all of this effort so we can apply Rolle (typical trick in calculus)

4) Apply Rolle to $g(x)$.

$$g(x_0) = 0$$

$$g(x_*) = 0$$

$$\rightarrow \exists \xi_1 \in (x_0, x_*) : g'(\xi_1) = 0.$$

$$g'(x) = f'(x_0) + 2E_* \frac{(x-x_0)}{(x-x_0)^2} - f'(x).$$

$$! \quad g'(x_0) = 0.$$

5) Apply Rolle to $g'(x)$

$$\rightarrow \exists \xi_2 \in (x_0, \xi_1) : g''(\xi_2) = 0$$

$$g''(x) = \frac{2E_*}{(x-x_0)^2} - f''(x).$$

$$\exists \xi_2 : g''(\xi_2) = 0 \Leftrightarrow \frac{2E_*}{(x_*-x_0)^2} - f''(\xi_2) = 0.$$

$$\Leftrightarrow E_* = \frac{1}{2} f''(\xi_2) (x_* - x_0)^2$$

6) $f(x) \approx p(x)$

$$f(x) = p(x) + E_* \frac{(x-x_0)^2}{(x_*-x_0)^2}$$

$$= p(x) + \frac{1}{2} f''(\xi) (x-x_0)^2$$

note because
 $|f(x) - p(x)| \leq \dots$
 if $f'' \approx 0$, then good approx.
 makes sense, show
 nearly lin
 func.

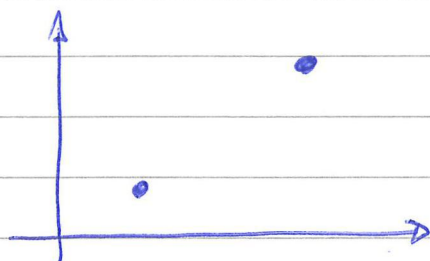
$$\approx \xi \in (x_0, x_*)$$

recap slide 17

slides 13 + 18 $\rightarrow$ do in Matlab

Lagrange polynomials

Consider $N=2$: (x_0, y_0) , (x_1, y_1) .



I want a first degree poly (i.e. lin func) through these points
i.e. $p(x_i) = y_i$

One way to do that is as follows.

$$p(x) = \frac{x - x_1}{x_0 - x_1} \cdot y_0 + \frac{x - x_0}{x_1 - x_0} \cdot y_1$$

if $x = x_0$: $p(x_0) = \frac{x_0 - x_1}{x_0 - x_1} \cdot y_0 + \frac{x_0 - x_0}{x_1 - x_0} \cdot y_1$

$$p(x_0) = y_0 \quad \checkmark$$

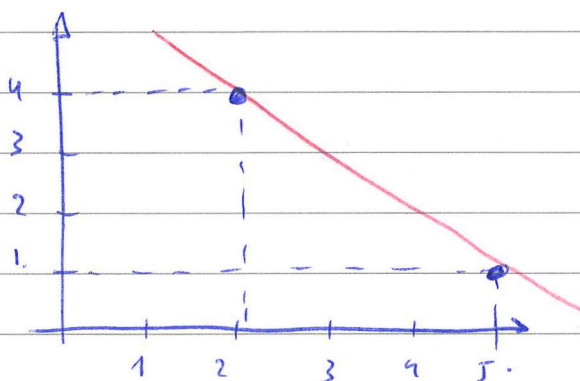
if $x = x_1$: $p(x_1) = \frac{x_1 - x_1}{x_0 - x_1} \cdot y_0 + \frac{x_1 - x_0}{x_1 - x_0} \cdot y_1$

$$p(x_1) = y_1 \quad \checkmark$$

This is quite nice because I can construct everything based on data points using simple formulas.
 | interpol nodes

eg. Construct Lagrange poly of degree 1 through (x_0, y_0) and (x_1, y_1) .

$$\begin{aligned} p(x) &= \frac{x-x_1}{x_0-x_1} \cdot y_0 + \frac{x-x_0}{x_1-x_0} y_1 \\ &= \frac{x-5}{2-5} \cdot 4 + \frac{x-2}{5-2} \cdot 1 \\ &= -\frac{1}{3}(x-5) \cdot 4 + \frac{1}{3}(x-2) \cdot 1 \\ &= \dots \\ &= -x + 6. \end{aligned}$$



! Same as std linear fit of course, see further (just show it)

↳ let's generalize

$$p(x) = l_0(x) \cdot y_0 + l_1(x) y_1.$$

Lagrange basis functions.



draw them, see slides.

N=3: $(x_0, y_0), (x_1, y_1), (x_2, y_2)$.

$$p(x) = \underbrace{l_0(x)}_{\downarrow} y_0 + \underbrace{l_1(x)}_{\downarrow} y_1 + \underbrace{l_2(x)}_{\downarrow} y_2$$

$$p(x) = \underbrace{\left(\frac{x-x_1}{x_0-x_1} \right) \left(\frac{x-x_2}{x_0-x_2} \right)}_{l_0(x)} y_0 + \underbrace{\left(\frac{x-x_0}{x_1-x_0} \right) \left(\frac{x-x_2}{x_1-x_2} \right)}_{l_1(x)} y_1 + \underbrace{\left(\frac{x-x_0}{x_2-x_0} \right) \left(\frac{x-x_1}{x_2-x_1} \right)}_{l_2(x)} y_2.$$

part

if $x=x_0$: $p(x_0) = \underbrace{\left(\frac{x_0-x_1}{x_0-x_1} \right)}_{\substack{1 \\ \uparrow}} \underbrace{\left(\frac{x_0-x_2}{x_0-x_2} \right)}_{\substack{1 \\ \uparrow}} y_0 + 0 \cdot y_1 + 0 \cdot y_2$

$$p(x_0) = y_0.$$

:

N+1 $(x_0, y_0) \dots (x_n, y_n)$.

define: $l_i(x) = \frac{(x-x_0)}{(x_0-x_0)} \dots \frac{(x-x_{i-1})}{(x_0-x_{i-1})} \frac{(x-x_{i+1})}{(x_0-x_{i+1})} \dots \frac{(x-x_n)}{(x_0-x_n)}$

$= \prod_{\substack{j=0 \\ j \neq i}}^n \left(\frac{x-x_j}{x_i-x_j} \right)$

general Lagrange basis,

→ $l_i(x_j) = 1$ if $i=j$,
 $l_i(x_j) = 0$ if $i \neq j$.

$$p(x) = \sum_{i=0}^n l_i(x) \cdot y_i$$

→ example (slides) 23-24.

Existence & uniqueness

* We can always do this (by construction)

$$p(x) = \sum_{i=0}^n l_i(x) \cdot y_i \xrightarrow[\text{& simplify}]{\text{expand.}}$$

$$p(x) = \sum_{i=0}^n c_i x^i$$

e.g. first degree
example from before

what about uniqueness?

* we have $n+1$ linear equations (in c_i).

$$c_0 + c_1 x_i + c_2 x_i^2 + \dots + c_n x_i^n = y_i$$

* write as matrix

$n+1$

$n+1$

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & x_0 & x_0^2 & \dots & x_0^n \\ 1 & x_1 & x_1^2 & \dots & x_1^n \\ \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ 1 & x_n & x_n^2 & \dots & x_n^n \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} c_0 \\ c_1 \\ \vdots \\ c_n \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} y_0 \\ y_1 \\ \vdots \\ y_n \end{pmatrix}$$

$= V$

show that
of polyfit.

"Algorithmic"
now we know what's
happening when you
call polyfit.

* Does a sol to this system exist AND is unique? (yes for all data, if diff nodes).

1) This is a Vdm matrix with $\det(V) \neq 0$ iff $x_i \neq x_j$ if $i \neq j$.
(all distinct nodes).

$\det V = \prod_{i < j} (x_j - x_i)$
if all $x_i \neq x_j$
for all $i \neq j$

2) If $\det V \neq 0 \Rightarrow V$ has full rank $n+1$.
(i.e. the nullity is zero) $\rightarrow$ unique sol.

3) By 2 & 1, unique sol. ~~max~~

④

mention ④ and ⑤ page 10

$$y = \frac{x - x_1}{x_0 - x_1} y_0 + \frac{x - x_0}{x_1 - x_0} y_1$$

$$= - \frac{x - x_1}{x_1 - x_0} y_0 + \frac{x - x_0}{x_1 - x_0} y_1$$

$$= \frac{-xy_0 + x_1y_0 + xy_1 - x_0y_1}{x_1 - x_0} \quad \frac{+x_0y_0 - x_0y_0}{x_1 - x_0}$$

$$= \frac{(y_1 - y_0) \cdot x - (y_1 - y_0) x_0}{(x_1 - x_0)} + \frac{(x_1 - x_0) y_0}{(x_1 - x_0)}$$

$$y = \left(\frac{y_1 - y_0}{x_1 - x_0} \right) \cdot x + y_0$$

Standard linear
fit formula.

Newton polynomial interpolation

Explain via an example.

$$\begin{array}{c|ccc} x_i & 1 & 3 & -2 \\ y_i & 5,0 & 1,0 & -4,0 \end{array} \quad \begin{pmatrix} 4 \\ 9,1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Idea: Interpolate step by step (instead of all-at-once in 1).

* zero-degree poly through $(1, 5,0)$:

$$p_0(x) = a_0$$

$$p_0(1) = a_0 = 5,0.$$

* first-degree poly through $(1; 5,0)$ AND $(3; 1,0)$

WITHOUT CHANGING THE VALUE AT x_0 . !

$$\begin{aligned} p_1(x) &= p_0(x) + (x - x_0)a_1 \\ &= a_0 + (x - x_0)a_1 \end{aligned}$$

↳ this works! $p_1(x_0) = a_0 + (x_0 - x_0)a_1 = a_0$.

↳ find a_1

$$p_1(x_1) = 5,0 + (3 - 1) \cdot a_1 = y_1 = 1.$$

$$\dots a_1 = -2,0.$$

$$p_1(x) = 5,0 + (x - 1,0)(-2,0)$$

* 2nd-degree poly through $(1; 5,0)$ AND $(3; 1,0)$ AND $(-2; -4,0)$

WITHOUT CHANGING THE VALUE AT x_0 AND x_1

$$p_2(x) = p_1(x) + (x - x_0)(x - x_1)a_2.$$

↳ this works!

$$p_2(x_0) = p_1(x_0) + (x_0 - x_0)(x_0 - x_1) a_2 \quad (= a_0)$$

" (see before)

$$p_2(x_1) = p_1(x_1) + (x_1 - x_0)(x_1 - x_1) a_2 \quad (= a_1)$$

" (see before)

↳ Find a_2 :

$$p_2(x_2) = p_1(x_2) + (x_2 - x_0)(x_2 - x_1) a_2 = y_2$$

... $a_2 = -1$.

etc ... **I strongly recommend to do the next steps yourself by hand!**

Note: Nested Form ~ Horner's method

$$\begin{aligned} p_2(x) &= p_1(x) + (x - x_0)(x - x_1) a_2 \\ &= a_0 + \underline{(x - x_0)} a_1 + \underline{(x - x_0)(x - x_1)} a_2 \\ &= a_0 + (x - x_0)(a_1 + (x - x_1) a_2) \\ &= 5 + (x - 1)(-2 + (x - 3)(-2)) \end{aligned}$$

vs

$$\begin{aligned} p_2(x) &= 5 + (x - 1)(-2 - x + 3) \\ &= 5 + (x - 1)(1 - x) \\ &= 5 + x - x^2 - 1 + x \\ &= (-1)x^2 + (2)x + (4) \end{aligned}$$

Nested eval

~ See lecture 4.

direct eval.

→ test it with 3 digit arithmetic.

ⓧ Nice prop: If you have an extra datapoint, you can simply add $\textcircled{Cf}$ Lagrange, where you have to redo everything! (but you can precompute vs on the fly!)

General case

$$p_0(x) = a_0$$

$$p_1(x) = a_0 + (x - x_0) a_1$$

$$p_2(x) = a_0 + (x - x_0) a_1 + (x - x_0)(x - x_1) a_2$$
$$= a_0 + (x - x_0) (a_1 + (x - x_1) a_2)$$

$$p_3(x) = a_0 + (x - x_0) a_1 + (x - x_0)(x - x_1) a_2 + (x - x_0)(x - x_1)(x - x_2) a_3$$
$$= a_0 + (x - x_0) (a_1 + (x - x_1) (a_2 + (x - x_2) a_3))$$

⋮
✓

$$p(x) = a_0 + (x - x_0) (a_1 + \dots + (x - x_{n-2}) (a_{n-1} + (x - x_{n-1}) a_n) \dots)$$

$$= \sum_{i=0}^n a_i \prod_{j=0}^{i-1} (x - x_j)$$

~ def is compact but sparse
because it doesn't illustrate
the recursive prop.

Recursive eval

$$p = a_n$$

for $i = n-1; -1; 1$

$$p = a_i + (x_0 - x_i) p$$

end

Neville's method --- ~~simple~~

→ Another way to compute Newton interp. poly.

* First, note the following.

Suppose $P[f; x_0, \dots, x_n]$ is an interp poly of f at $x_0 \dots x_n$.

Suppose the nested form of the interp poly at $x_0 \dots x_n$ is

$$P[f; x_0, \dots, x_n] = \sum_{i=0}^n a_i \prod_{j=0}^{i-1} (x - x_j).$$

then for $k \leq n$, the interp poly at $x_0 \dots x_k$ has
the same coeff!

$$P[f; x_0, \dots, x_k] = \sum_{i=0}^k a_i \prod_{j=0}^{i-1} (x - x_j)$$

example from before

$$P[f; x_0] = (5, 0) = p_0(x)$$

$$P[f; x_0, x_1] = (5, 0) + (x - 1, 0)(-2, 0) = p_1(x)$$

$$P[f; x_0, x_1, x_2] = (5, 0) + (x - 1, 0)((-2, 0) + (x - 3)(-1)) = p_2(x).$$

* Neville's method uses the following formula based on that fact.

$$P[f; x_0 \dots x_n] = \frac{(x - x_0) P[f; x_1 \dots x_n](x) - (x - x_n) P[f; x_0 \dots x_{n-1}](x)}{x_n - x_0}.$$

→ you don't need to know the derivation; only if it makes sense.

How? check if $P[f; x_0 \dots x_n](x_0) \stackrel{?}{=} f(x_0)$
 $(x_1) \stackrel{?}{=} f(x_1)$ } Try it!

$$\begin{array}{c|ccc} x_i & 1 & 3 & -2 \\ y_i & 5,0 & 1,0 & -4,0 \end{array}$$

$$P[f; x_0] = 5,0$$

$$P[f; x_1] = 1,0$$

$$P[f; x_2] = -4,0$$

$$P[f; x_0, x_1] = \frac{(x-x_0) P[f; x_1] - (x-x_1) P[f; x_0]}{x_1-x_0}$$

$$= \frac{(x-1) \cdot 1,0 - (x-3) \cdot 5,0}{3-1}$$

$$= \frac{x-1-5x+15}{2}$$

$$= \frac{-4x+14}{2}$$

$$= -2x+7 = 5,0 + (x-1,0) \cdot (-2,0)$$

$$P[f; x_1, x_2] = \frac{(x-x_1) P[f; x_2] - (x-x_2) P[f; x_1]}{x_2-x_1}$$

$$= \frac{(x-3)(-4,0) - (x-2) \cdot 1,0}{-2-3}$$

$$= \frac{-4x+12-x-2}{-5}$$

$$= \frac{-5x+10}{-5}$$

$$= x-2$$

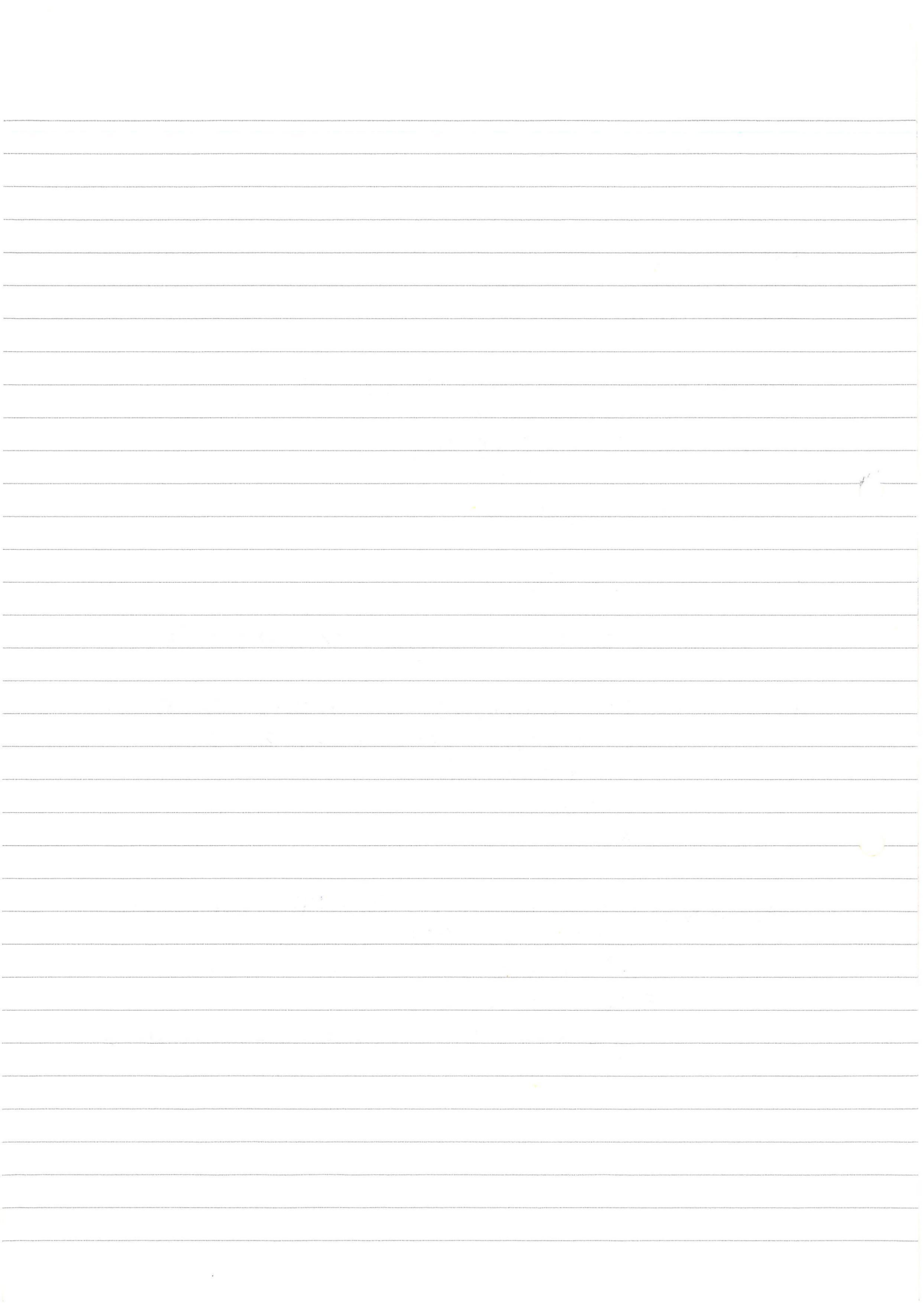
$$P[f; x_0, x_1, x_2] = \frac{(x-x_0) \cdot P[f; x_1, x_2] - (x-x_2) \cdot P[f; x_0, x_1]}{x_2-x_0}$$

$$= \frac{(x-1)(x-2) - (x+2)(-2x+7)}{-2-1}$$

$$= \frac{x^2-2x-x+2 - (-2x^2+7x-4x+14)}{-3}$$

$$= \frac{3x^2-6x-12}{-3}$$

$$= -x^2+2x+4 = 5 + (x-1)(-2) + (x-3)(-1)$$



Divided diffs = final method, and "best" method, to compute Newton interpol poly. ^{in numerical sense. (for the three that we see)}

* Nested form of interpol poly through $x_0 \dots x_n$.

$$P[f; x_0, \dots, x_n](x) = a_0 + (x-x_0)(a_1 + \dots + (x-x_{n-2})(a_{n-1} + (x-x_{n-1})a_n) \dots)$$

The coefficient of x^k is a_k (if you explicitize).

* Let's denote the coeff of x^k in $P[f; x_0 \dots x_n]$ as.

$$f[x_0, \dots, x_n].$$

then we see, that $a_k = f[x_0, \dots, x_n]$.

* Neville's method says / uses:

$$P[f; x_0, \dots, x_n](x) = \frac{(x-x_0)P[f; x_1, \dots, x_n](x) - (x-x_n)P[f; x_0, \dots, x_{n-1}](x)}{x_n - x_0}$$

If we only look at the coefficient of x^k , then we have

$$f[x_0, \dots, x_n] = \frac{f[x_1, \dots, x_n] - f[x_0, \dots, x_{n-1}]}{x_n - x_0}$$

we call this divided difference

Reurards: the coeff of x^k in the interpol poly through $x_0 \dots x_n$ is equal to the diff between the coeff of the interpol poly through $x_1 \dots x_n$ and the coeff of the interpol poly through $x_0 \dots x_{n-1}$, divided by $x_n - x_0$.

⚠ Note: Neville: we compute the ^{full} polys.

Div diff: we only compute the coeffs., needed for nested form.

Let's check for previous example.

$$p_0(x) = 1$$

$$p_1(x) = 1 + (x-3)a_1$$

$$p_1(x_2) = -4 = 1 + (-2-3)a_1 \Rightarrow 1 - 5a_1 = -4$$

$$a_1 = 1.$$

Same approach as before.

$$P(f; x, x_2) = 1 + (x-3)(1)$$

$$f[x_0, x_1, x_2] =$$

$$\frac{f[x_1, x_2] - f[x_0, x_1]}{x_2 - x_0}$$

$$P(f; x_0, x_1) = 5 + (x-1)(-2)$$

$$-2 - 1$$

$$= \frac{1 - (-2)}{-2 - 1}$$

$$= \frac{1 - (-2)}{-2 - 1}$$

$$= -1$$

$$P(f; x_0, x_1, x_2) = (-1)x^2 + 2x + 4$$

How to start formula? Full def. div diff.

$$f[x_i] = f(x_i)$$

(Eingabe (= coeff of x^0 term))

$$f[x_i, \dots, x_j] = \frac{f[x_{i+1}, \dots, x_j] - f[x_i, \dots, x_{j-1}]}{x_j - x_i}$$

Example in slides.

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OR better

40 + formulas in 37.

or example next page

② mention props: 41

Newton: (cont'd example)

$$f(x_0) = f(x_0) = 5,0$$

$$f(x_1) = f(x_1) = 1,0$$

$$f(x_2) = f(x_2) = -4,0.$$

$$f[x_0, x_1] = \frac{f(x_1) - f(x_0)}{x_1 - x_0} = \frac{1 - 5}{3 - 1} = -2$$

$$f[x_1, x_2] = \dots = 1$$

$$f[x_0, x_1, x_2] = \frac{f[x_1, x_2] - f[x_0, x_1]}{x_2 - x_0} = \frac{1 - (-2)}{-2 - 1} = \frac{3}{-3} = -1$$

→ Good method.



Divided differences

Example Interpolate data

x_i	1	-4	0
$f(x_i)$	0.3	1.3	-2.3

Nested form: $p(x) = 0.3 + (x - 1) \times (-0.2 + (x + 4) \times 0.7)$.

Check:

$$\begin{aligned} p(1) &= 0.3 + (1-1) \times (-0.2 + (1+4) \times 0.7) = 0.3 + 0 \times (\dots) = 0.3. \\ p(-4) &= 0.3 + (-4-1) \times (-0.2 + (-4+4) \times 0.7) \\ &= 0.3 - 5 \times (-0.2 + 0 \times 0.7) = 1.3. \\ p(0) &= 0.3 + (0-1) \times (-0.2 + (0+4) \times 0.7) \\ &= 0.3 - (-0.2 + 4 \times 0.7) = 0.3 - 2.6 = -2.3. \end{aligned}$$

Note: Only the check $p(x_n) = y_n$ at the final data point tests all calculated coefficients!

Note: The expanded form is $p(x) = 0.7x^2 + 1.9x - 2.3$, but nested form is usually more accurate to evaluate, so it is better to leave your answer in nested form.

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Divided differences

Example Interpolate data

x_i	1	2	4	5
$y_i = f(x_i)$	3	1	2	6

Divided differences

$x_0 = 1$	$f[x_0] = 3$	$f[x_0, x_1] = -2$	$f[x_0, x_1, x_2] = 5/6$	$f[x_0, x_1, x_2, x_3] = 1/12$
$x_1 = 2$	$f[x_1] = 1$	$f[x_1, x_2] = 1/2$	$f[x_1, x_2, x_3] = 7/6$	
$x_2 = 4$	$f[x_2] = 2$	$f[x_2, x_3] = 4$		
$x_3 = 5$	$f[x_3] = 6$			

Interpolating polynomial

$$p(x) = 3 + (x - 1) \times (-2 + (x - 2) \times (\frac{5}{6} + (x - 4) \times \frac{1}{12})).$$

Check by computing $p(x)$ at interpolation point x_3 .

$$\begin{aligned} p(x_3) &= 3 + (5 - 1) \times (-2 + (5 - 2) \times (\frac{5}{6} + (5 - 4) \times \frac{1}{12})) \\ &= 3 + 4 \times (-2 + 3 \times (\frac{5}{6} + 1 \times \frac{1}{12})) = 3 + 4 \times (-2 + 3 \times \frac{11}{12}) \\ &= 3 + 4 \times (-2 + \frac{11}{4}) = 3 + 4 \times \frac{3}{4} = 3 + 3 = 6 = f(x_3). \end{aligned}$$

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Properties of divided differences

Symmetry The divided difference $f[x_0, \dots, x_k]$ is independent of the order of the variables:

$$f[x_0, \dots, x_i, \dots, x_j, \dots, x_k] = f[x_0, \dots, x_j, \dots, x_i, \dots, x_k].$$

e.g. $f[x_0, x_1, x_2, x_3] = f[x_0, x_3, x_2, x_1]$; $f[x_1, x_2, x_4] = f[x_4, x_1, x_2]$.

Order of computation The divided differences can be computed in many ways.

$$f[x_0, x_1, x_2, x_3] := \frac{f[x_1, x_2, x_3] - f[x_0, x_1, x_2]}{x_3 - x_0} = \frac{f[x_0, x_2, x_3] - f[x_1, x_2, x_3]}{x_0 - x_1}.$$

Explicit formula From the Lagrange form of the interpolating polynomial:

$$f[x_0, \dots, x_k] = \sum_{i=0}^k \frac{f(x_i)}{\prod_{j=0, j \neq i}^k (x_i - x_j)}.$$

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Extended divided differences (Non-Examinable)

Theorem (Divided differences and derivatives) If $f^{(n)}$ is continuous on $[a, b]$ and $x_0, \dots, x_n$ are distinct points in $[a, b]$, then there exists $\xi \in [a, b]$ such that $f[x_0, \dots, x_n] = f^{(n)}(\xi)/n!$.

i.e. the n^{th} divided differences are approximations to $f^{(n)}(x)/n!$

Extended divided differences Extend divided differences to the case some of the x_i are equal by defining

$$f[x, x] = f'(x); \quad f[x, x, x] = f''(x)/2; \quad f[x, x, \dots, x] = f^{(n)}(x)/n!$$

Then we can compute e.g.

$$f[x, x, y] = \frac{f[x, y] - f[x, x]}{y - x} = \frac{\frac{f(y) - f(x)}{y - x} - f'(x)}{y - x}.$$

Newton's nested form extends naturally to this case!

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Function Approximation by Polynomial Interpolation

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Function approximation

Function Approximation Given a function $f : [a, b] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$, find a function g such that $g(x) \approx f(x)$

Approximation error Minimise the *uniform/supremum norm* or *max*.

$$\|f - g\|_{\infty} := \sup_{x \in [a, b]} |f(x) - g(x)|.$$

or (easier) the *two-norm*

$$\|f - g\|_2 := \left(\int_a^b |f(x) - g(x)|^2 dx \right)^{1/2}. \quad \text{Area between func.}$$

Approximation by interpolation Often compute g as a function interpolating f at points $x_0, x_1, \dots, x_n$.

Applications

- Often used for computer arithmetic, by approximating a transcendental function (such as $\exp(x)$) by polynomial or rational function. *(better / more acc than Taylor!)*
- May also be used to *simplify* a model by replacing a slow-to-evaluate function by a faster-to-evaluate approximation.

transcendental func = analytic func that does not satisfy a poly eq
(in contrast to algebraic operations)
no finite seq of algebra. ops to represent the func. "transcends" algebra.

Error of polynomial interpolation

→ illustrates poly interpol (from previous section) isn't always the best option.

Lagrange basis example Interpolate $y(0) = 1, y(i) = 0$ for $i = -m, \dots, +m$.

`m=4, n=2*m; xs=[-m:+m], ys=zeros(1,n+1); ys(m+1)=1,
cs = polyfit(xs,ys,n), p = @(x)polyval(cs,x),
p(xs),
plot([-m,+m],[0,0]); hold; fplot(p,[-m,+m]); hold;`

Runge example Interpolate $f(x) = 1/(1+x^2)$ using $n+1$ equally spaced nodes on $[-4, +4]$.

`f=@(x)1./(1+x.^2); a=4;
n=8, xs=linspace(-a,+a,n+1), ys=f(xs),
cs = polyfit(xs,ys,n); p = @(x)polyval(cs,x),
fplot(f,[-a,+a]); hold; fplot(p,[-a,+a]); hold;`

Errors $e_8 = 0.73, e_{16} = 5.9, e_{32} = 7.1 \cdot 10^2, e_{64} = 2.8 \cdot 10^8$.

Approximation accuracy worsens as n increases!!

Runge phenomenon: large error near the ends of the interval.

What the hell is happening?

Error of interpolating polynomial

Theorem (Error of interpolating polynomial) If p is the polynomial of degree at most n that interpolates f at the $n+1$ distinct nodes $x_0, x_1, \dots, x_n$ belonging to an interval $[a, b]$, and if $f^{(n+1)}$ is continuous, then for each x in $[a, b]$, there is a ξ in (a, b) for which

$$f(x) - p(x) = \frac{1}{(n+1)!} f^{(n+1)}(\xi) \prod_{i=0}^n (x - x_i)$$

Hence

$$|f(x) - p(x)| \leq \frac{1}{(n+1)!} \left(\max_{\xi \in [a,b]} |f^{(n+1)}(\xi)| \right) \prod_{i=0}^n |x - x_i|$$

error can be large if higher order deriv is large. When is that? If func. varies fast.

Error of interpolating polynomial**Proof of interpolating polynomial error (Non-Examinable)**

Let p interpolate f at $x_0, \dots, x_n$. Fix x_* . Let $E_* = f(x_*) - p(x_*)$.

Let l_* be the Lagrange polynomial $l_*(x_*) = 1$ and $l_*(x_i) = 0$ for $i = 0, \dots, n$.

Then $p(x_i) + E_* l_*(x_i) = f(x_i)$ and $p(x_*) + E_* l_*(x_*) = f(x_*)$.

Let $g(x) = p(x) + E_* l_*(x) - f(x)$ which has zeros at $x_0, \dots, x_n, x_*$.

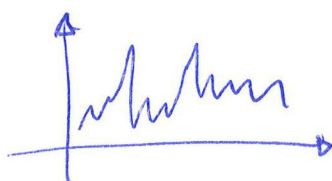
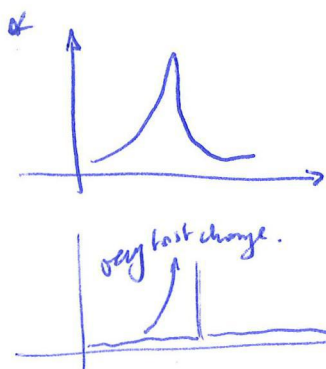
By Rolle's theorem, there exists ξ such that $g^{(n+1)}(\xi) = 0$.

Note for all x , $p^{(n+1)}(x) = 0$ and $l_*^{(n+1)}(x) = (n+1)! / \prod_{i=0}^n (x_* - x_i)$.

Hence $E_* (n+1)! / \prod_{i=0}^n (x_* - x_i) - f^{(n+1)}(\xi) = 0$.

Rearranging gives $f(x_*) - p(x_*) = \frac{1}{(n+1)!} f^{(n+1)}(\xi) \prod_{i=0}^n (x_* - x_i)$.

What can we do?



Chebyshev nodes

Chebyshev nodes Interpolation over $[a, b]$ often best using nodes

$$x_k = \frac{a+b}{2} - \frac{b-a}{2} \cos\left(\frac{2k+1}{2(n+1)}\pi\right) \text{ for } k = 0, \dots, n.$$

Runge example Interpolate $f(x) = 1/(1+x^2)$ using $n+1$ Chebyshev nodes on $[-4, +4]$.

```
f=@(x)1./(1+x.^2); a=4;
n=8, xs=-a*cos((2*[0:n]+1)*pi/(2*n+2)), ys=f(xs),
cs = polyfit(xs,ys,n); p = @(x)polyval(cs,x);
fplot(f,[-a,+a]); hold on; fplot(p,[-a,+a]); hold off;
```

Errors $e_8 = 0.10$, $e_{16} = 0.015$, $e_{32} = 2.8 \cdot 10^{-4}$.

Approximation accuracy improves as n increases.

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Error of interpolating polynomials

Theorem (Interpolation error with equally-spaced nodes) If $p(x)$ is the interpolating polynomial of f with $n+1$ equally-spaced nodes on $[a, b]$, then

$$|f(x) - p(x)| \leq \frac{(b-a)^{n+1}}{4n^{n+1}(n+1)} \max_{x \in [a,b]} |f^{(n+1)}(\xi)|$$

Theorem (Interpolation error with Chebyshev nodes) If $p(x)$ is the interpolating polynomial of f with $n+1$ Chebyshev nodes, then

$$|f(x) - p(x)| \leq \frac{(b-a)^{n+1}}{2^{2n+1}(n+1)!} \max_{x \in [a,b]} |f^{(n+1)}(\xi)|$$

Example If $f(x) = \sin(x)$ on $[-1, +1]$, then $\max_{x \in [a,b]} |f^{(n+1)}(\xi)| \leq 1$.

Hence with $4+1$ equally-spaced nodes have error

$$\epsilon \leq 2^{n+1}/4n^{n+1}(n+1) = 2^5/(4 \cdot 4^5 \cdot 5) = 1/640$$

and with $4+1$ Chebyshev nodes,

$$\epsilon \leq 2^{n+1}/2^{2n+1}(n+1)! = 1/(2^4 \cdot 5!) = 1/1920.$$

Here exist problems where even chebyshev nodes can't help us, but we have Weierstrass thm.

Approximation theorems (Non-examinable)

Theorem (Weierstrass) Let f be continuous on $[a, b]$. Then for every $\epsilon > 0$, there exists a polynomial p such that

$$\|f - p\|_{\infty} := \sup_{x \in [a,b]} |f(x) - p(x)| < \epsilon.$$

Theorem (Chebyshev alternation) Let f be continuous on $[a, b]$. Then there is a unique best approximating polynomial p_m of degree m .

Further, there exist $m+2$ points $w_0, \dots, w_{m+1}$ such that

$$f(w_i) - p_m(w_i) = \pm(-1)^i \|f - p_m\|_{\infty},$$

and $m+1$ points $x_0, \dots, x_m$ such that $p_m(x_i) = f(x_i)$.

If f is n -times continuously differentiable, there is a constant C such that $\|f - p_m\| \leq C/m^n$, and if f is smooth (analytic), then there are constants C and $R > 1$ such that $\|f - p_m\| \leq C/R^m$.

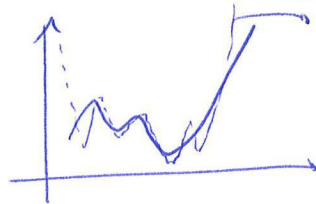
The best approximating polynomial can be computed using the Remez exchange algorithm. $\rightarrow$ for the interested student.

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This thm tells us that such points exist - however not always clear how to find those points

why splines?

1)



poly approx over entire interval ~~not~~ typically.
leads to Runge's phenomenon: func vals at edges.
+ oscillatory behavior of polynomials
due to HIGH ORDER

Spline Interpolation

RDEA: Approx the func in segments with lower order polys

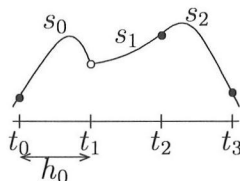
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Splines

"piecewise" poly approx
aka spline approx.

→ ex. see Gp. 3.12 & 3.13, p. 36

Definition A spline of degree n on $[a, b]$ with knots at $a = t_0 < t_1 < \dots < t_{n+1} = b$ is an function s such that s is equal to a degree- n polynomial s_i on $[t_i, t_{i+1}]$ and s is $n - 1$ times differentiable (with continuous derivative) at each t_i .



The function above is not a cubic spline since it is not differentiable at t_1 .

$$\lim_{x \nearrow t_1} s'(x) = s'_0(t_1) \neq s'_1(t_1) = \lim_{x \searrow t_1} s'(x)$$

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Spline interpolation

(Cubic) Spline Interpolation Compute a (cubic) spline s such that $s(x_i) = y_i$ for $i = 0, \dots, n$.

Knots at interpolation points For cubic splines, take knots at interpolation points, so $t_i = x_i$ for $i = 0, \dots, n$.

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Spline Interpolation in Matlab

Computing splines The command

`S=spline(X,Y)`

computes the spline interpolating data

$$X = [x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n], Y = [y_1, y_2, \dots, y_n]$$

with *not-a-knot* end conditions $s'''(x_2) = s'''(x_{n-1}) = 0$.

The command

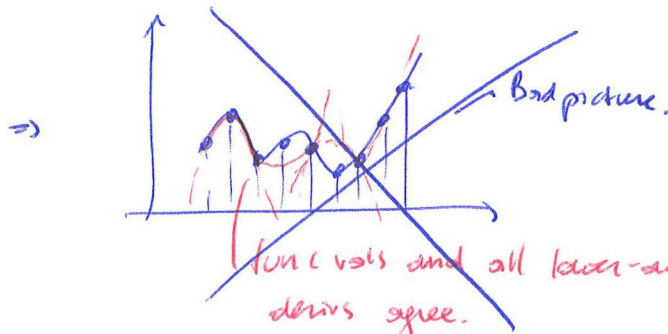
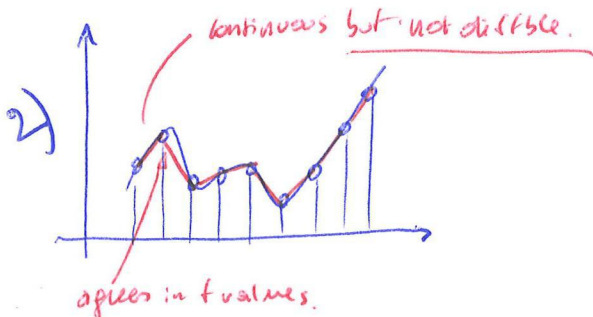
`S=spline(X, [b1, Y, bn])`

computes the spline interpolating data X, Y with *clamped* end conditions $s'(x_1) = b_1$ and $s'(x_n) = b_n$.

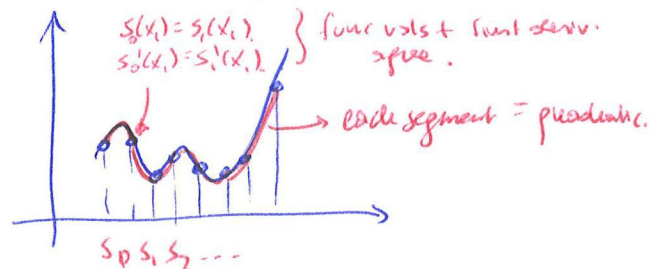
Evaluating splines To evaluate the spline S at x , use the command

`ppval(S,x)`

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Spline Interpolation in Matlab

Example Standard basis $s(0) = 1$, otherwise $s(i) = 0$, for $i = -n, \dots, n$.

```
n=4; X=[-n:+n], Y=0*X; Y(n+1)=1,
S=spline(X,Y), s=@(x) ppval(S,x),
plot([-n:+n],[0,0]); hold; fplot(s,[-n,+n]); hold
```

Example Interpolate $f(x) = 1/(1+x^2)$ on $[-4, 4]$ with clamped ends.

```
f=@(x) 1./(1+x.^2), df=@(x) 2*x./(1+x.^2).^2, a=-4, b=+4,
n=8; X=linspace(a,b,n+1), Y=f(X), wa=df(a), wb=df(b),
S=spline(X,[wa,Y,wb]), s=@(x) ppval(S,x),
fplot(f,[-4,+4]); hold on; fplot(s,[-4,+4]); hold off;
```

Spline interpolation does not suffer from the extreme oscillations which may occur in polynomial interpolation!

→ get curve: illuminator. / drawing / pen tool

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Spline interpolation conditions (Non-examinable)

Spline formulae For $x \in [x_j, x_{j+1}]$, write $s(x) = s_j(x)$ given as

$$s_j(x) = a_j + b_j(x - x_j) + c_j(x - x_j)^2 + d_j(x - x_j)^3.$$

The derivatives of s_j are

$$s'_j(x) = b_j + 2c_j(x - x_j) + 3d_j(x - x_j)^2,$$

$$s''_j(x) = 2c_j + 6d_j(x - x_j).$$

Knot points At knot points, $s(x_j) = s_j(x_j) = a_j$, $s'(x_j) = s'_j(x_j) = b_j$, $s''(x_j) = s''_j(x_j) = 2c_j$. Note $c_j = s''(x_j)/2$.

Interpolation conditions The interpolation conditions at x_j imply $a_j = y_j$ for $j = 0, \dots, n$.

Continuity conditions The continuity of s, s', s'' imply for $j = 1, \dots, n-1$

$$s_{j-1}(x_j) = s_j(x_j), \quad s'_{j-1}(x_j) = s'_j(x_j), \quad s''_{j-1}(x_j) = s''_j(x_j).$$

Alternatively, reindexing gives for $j = 0, \dots, n-2$.

$$s_j(x_{j+1}) = s_{j+1}(x_{j+1}), \quad s'_j(x_{j+1}) = s'_{j+1}(x_{j+1}), \quad s''_j(x_{j+1}) = s''_{j+1}(x_{j+1}).$$

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